

PHYS 253: Thermal Physics

W.R.YCH.

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Abstract

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1 Introduction

1.1 Course Information

The textbook is *An Introduction to Thermal Physics* by Daniel V. Schroeder. Grading is divided as follows:

- 10% problem sets (~ 6 , submitted as handwritten PDF scans)¹
- 50% two midterms
- 40% final exam

2 Thermodynamics

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September 2,
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Definition 1 (Thermodynamics). *Thermodynamics, from the ancient Greek $\theta\epsilon\rho\mu\epsilon$ (heat) and $\delta\upsilon\nu\alpha\mu\iota\varsigma$ (power), is the branch of physics that deals with the relationships between heat, work, temperature and energy. It studies the equilibrium properties of large-scale systems in which temperature is an important variable.*

Remark 1. *Thermodynamics does not describe the microscopic details of a system². It describes the macroscopic properties and behaviour of a system using a small number of state variables.*

2.1 Terminologies

Definition 2 (System, surroundings, boundary). *The system is everything involved in the process under study; the surroundings are the rest of the universe it interacts with; the boundary is the interface between them.*

Definition 3 (Open, closed, isolated). *An open system exchanges matter and energy with its surroundings, a closed system only energy, and an isolated system neither. The boundary determines which.*

2.2 Equilibrium States

Definition 4 (Equilibrium state). *A system is in an equilibrium state if all the measurable bulk physical properties of the system are uniform throughout the system and constant in time.*

Remark 2. *For a fixed volume of gas in an equilibrium state, the pressure is the same everywhere in the gas and the volume does not change in time. The pressure, volume and mass of a gas fully describe its equilibrium state: once those are fixed, every other measurable bulk property is fixed as well.*

¹Only one or two problems on each assignment are marked for submission and grading.

²Statistical mechanics, and more recent extensions such as stochastic thermodynamics, do.

Definition 5 (Local thermodynamic equilibrium). *Divide the system into small volume elements. A volume element V_i is in local thermodynamic equilibrium if the properties inside V_i are the same as those of an equilibrium system at the local (P, V, T) conditions.*

Remark 3. *This lets a system with, say, a temperature gradient still be treated cell by cell, with U , H , S defined in each cell. The approximation is better when relaxation is slow and the gradients in (P, V, T) are gentle.*

Remark 4. *Thermodynamics studies equilibrium states themselves, not how long it takes to reach them. Rates of processes belong to a separate subject (transport theory or kinetics).*

2.3 Equations of State and State Functions

Definition 6 (Equation of state). *An equation of state is a functional relationship between the easily measured state variables³ of a system in an equilibrium state.*

Example. *The ideal gas law is an equation of state relating (P, V, T) . It applies to equilibrium states of dilute gases at high temperature:*

$$PV = nRT = Nk_B T,$$

where n is the number of moles, $N = nN_A$ is the number of molecules, R is the ideal gas constant and $k_B = R/N_A = 1.38 \times 10^{-23} \text{ J K}^{-1}$ is Boltzmann's constant.

Definition 7 (State function). *A state function is a property of a system that depends only on the current equilibrium state, and not on the path taken to reach that state. Internal energy, enthalpy, entropy and Gibbs free energy are all state functions.*

Remark 5. *State functions matter because their values can be compared between two equilibrium states without knowing anything about the process that connected them.*

Example. *Temperature is a state function. It is the property that determines whether two systems are in thermal equilibrium⁴ with each other.*

3 Laws of Thermodynamics

3.1 Zeroth Law

Law 1 (Zeroth Law of Thermodynamics). *If two systems A and B are each separately in thermal equilibrium with a third system C , meaning no heat flows between A and C and no heat flows between B and C , then A and B are in thermal equilibrium with each other.*

³Such as pressure, volume and temperature.

⁴Thermal equilibrium only, not full thermodynamic equilibrium.

Remark 6. *The zeroth law is what makes a thermometer work. System C is the thermometer, and the law guarantees that two systems reading the same value on it are in thermal equilibrium with each other.*

Remark 7. *Thermal equilibrium (equal T) is not full thermodynamic equilibrium, which also requires mechanical and chemical (diffusive) equilibrium.*

Remark 8. *Extrapolating $V(T)$ at fixed P for any sample of ideal gas gives $V \rightarrow 0$ at the same temperature, $-273.15^\circ\text{C} = 0\text{ K}$, which defines absolute zero. A gas thermometer reads $T = PV/nR$.*

3.2 First Law

Law 2 (First Law of Thermodynamics). *The relationship between the heat Q added to a system, the work W done on it and the change in its internal energy U is dictated by the conservation of energy:*

$$\Delta U = Q + W.$$

Remark 9. *Sign convention: $Q > 0$ when heat flows into the system, and $W > 0$ when work is done on the system. Both raise the internal energy.*

Remark 10. *For an isolated system $Q = W = 0$, so U is constant.*

Remark 11. *The first law says energy is conserved. The second law (Section 10) says in which direction spontaneous processes go.*

4 Energy, Work and Heat

September 4,
2026

4.1 Energy

Definition 8 (Energy). *Energy, from the Greek energeia meaning "in work," is the capacity to do work. It is a property of a thermodynamic system, and it is stored in different forms depending on the phase and composition of the matter involved.*

Definition 9 (Kinetic energy). *From the Greek kinesis (motion), the energy associated with the motion of a body or of the particles inside it.*

Definition 10 (Potential energy). *Energy due to condition, position or composition. It is associated with interactions, meaning forces of attraction or repulsion between objects, or chemical bonding.*

Definition 11 (Internal energy of an ideal gas). *For an ideal gas the internal energy depends only on temperature. It is the number of molecules times the average kinetic energy per molecule:*

$$U(T) = N\bar{e}_k = \frac{f}{2}Nk_B T,$$

where f is the number of degrees of freedom per molecule. For a monatomic gas $f = 3$ (translation only), so $U = \frac{3}{2}Nk_B T$. More complex molecules have extra rotational or vibrational degrees of freedom, so $f > 3$.

4.2 Work

Definition 12 (Work). *Work is done when a force acts through a distance, and it is associated with a change in the energy of a system:*

$$W = \int \vec{F} \cdot d\vec{r}.$$

In thermodynamics, work is any transfer of energy into or out of a system that is not heat.

Compression of a gas by a piston. Take a gas in a cylinder closed by a piston of area A . Pushing the piston in by δx does work $W = F \delta x = PA \delta x$. For a quasistatic compression⁵, $\delta V = -A \delta x$, so the work done *on* the gas is

$$W = -P \delta V \quad (\text{quasistatic}).$$

Compressing the gas means $\delta V < 0$, so $W > 0$ and the energy of the gas goes up. For a finite change,

$$W = - \int_{V_i}^{V_f} P dV,$$

which is the area under the curve on a P - V diagram.

Remark 12. *Energy and work are measured in joules, $1 \text{ J} = 1 \text{ N m} = 1 \text{ kg m}^2 \text{ s}^{-2}$.*

4.3 Heat

Definition 13 (Heat). *Heat Q is energy that flows between a system and its surroundings because of a temperature difference. It flows spontaneously from the warmer body to the colder one, by conduction, convection or radiation, until $T_A = T_B$. No temperature difference, no heat flow.*

Remark 13. *Heat and work are not properties of a system. They are the two ways energy can be exchanged between a system and its surroundings. A system does not "contain" heat or work, it contains energy.*

5 Reversible Processes and Differentials

5.1 Reversible and Irreversible Processes

Definition 14 (Thermodynamic process). *A process is the mechanism that takes a system from one equilibrium state to another. The two equilibrium states are its end points.*

⁵Slow enough that the gas stays in internal equilibrium at every instant, so the pressure is uniform throughout the volume and the equation of state still applies.

Definition 15 (Reversible process). *A process is reversible (quasistatic) if the system passes through a succession of equilibrium states, so the equation of state holds at every point, and at every step the system and surroundings could be returned to their original states. This requires*

- reversible work: mechanical equilibrium, $P_{ext} = P_{sys}$;
- reversible heat: thermal equilibrium, $T_{surr} = T_{sys}$.

Remark 14. *These are limiting cases: for anything to happen there must be at least a differential dP or dT between system and surroundings. Their value is that the change in any state function between two equilibrium states can always be computed along a reversible path, whatever the actual path was.*

Example (Isothermal expansion of an ideal gas, $V_i \rightarrow V_f$). *Reversible ($P_{ext} = P_{gas}$ throughout):*

$$W_{rev} = -Nk_B T \ln \frac{V_f}{V_i}.$$

Irreversible single step ($P_{ext} = P_f \neq P_{gas}$):

$$W_{irr} = -P_f(V_f - V_i).$$

In both cases $\Delta U = 0$ and $Q = -W$, but $|W_{irr}| < |W_{rev}|$: the rectangle under P_f is smaller than the area under the isotherm.

Remark 15. *The work done by the gas in an expansion is maximized when the process is reversible. Reversing the endpoints, the work that must be done on the gas in a compression is minimized when reversible (a single step at $P_{ext} = P_i$ gives a larger rectangle than the area under the isotherm). Heat and work are path dependent; ΔU is not.*

5.2 Exact and Inexact Differentials

For a function $Z(x, y)$, a differential change has the form

$$dZ = M(x, y) dx + N(x, y) dy.$$

Theorem 1 (Test for exactness). *dZ is exact (path independent, so Z is a state function) if and only if*

$$\left(\frac{\partial M}{\partial y} \right)_x = \left(\frac{\partial N}{\partial x} \right)_y.$$

Otherwise dZ is inexact (path dependent).

Proof. If Z exists, $M = (\partial Z / \partial x)_y$ and $N = (\partial Z / \partial y)_x$, and equality of mixed partials gives the condition. Along any path $(x(t), y(t))$ from P to R , the chain rule backwards gives

$$\int_P^R M dx + N dy = \int_a^b \frac{d}{dt} Z(x(t), y(t)) dt = Z(R) - Z(P),$$

which depends only on the endpoints. □

Example. $U(V, T)$ of an ideal gas: $dU = (\partial U / \partial V)_T dV + (\partial U / \partial T)_V dT = 0 dV + C_V dT$. Then $(\partial 0 / \partial T)_V = 0 = (\partial C_V / \partial V)_T$ since $C_V = \frac{f}{2} N k_B$. Exact, so U is a state function.

Work: $dW = -P dV + 0 dT$. Then $(\partial P / \partial T)_V = nR/V \neq 0 = (\partial 0 / \partial V)_T$. Inexact, so W is not a state function.

Inexact differentials are written dQ and dW to signal that they depend on the path. Totals are integrals along the path:

$$W = \int dW = - \int_{V_1}^{V_2} P dV, \quad Q = \int dQ,$$

so different paths between the same two states give different W and Q , but the same $\Delta U = Q + W$.

5.3 Material Properties of a Compressible Fluid

For a fluid with equation of state $g(P, V, T) = 0$, only two of (P, V, T) are independent. Writing $V(P, T)$,

$$dV = \left(\frac{\partial V}{\partial T} \right)_P dT + \left(\frac{\partial V}{\partial P} \right)_T dP = \beta V dT - \frac{V}{B} dP,$$

where the partial derivatives define measurable properties:

Definition 16 (Thermal expansivity, bulk modulus, compressibility).

$$\beta = \frac{1}{V} \left(\frac{\partial V}{\partial T} \right)_P, \quad B = -V \left(\frac{\partial P}{\partial V} \right)_T, \quad \kappa = \frac{1}{B} = -\frac{1}{V} \left(\frac{\partial V}{\partial P} \right)_T.$$

Likewise, for $U(V, T)$ along a reversible path,

$$dU = \left(\frac{\partial U}{\partial V} \right)_T dV + \left(\frac{\partial U}{\partial T} \right)_V dT = -P dV + dQ_{\text{rev}}.$$

If $dV = 0$, then $dQ_{\text{rev}} = (\partial U / \partial T)_V dT = C_V dT$.

Remark 16. $(\partial U / \partial V)_T = 0$ for an ideal gas, since particles do not interact. For a real fluid with strong interactions it is nonzero and hard to measure directly; it will be recast into measurable form later using Maxwell relations.

6 Heat Capacity

6.1 Definition

Definition 17 (Heat capacity). The heat capacity C of a system is the heat needed to raise its temperature by 1 K:

$$C = \frac{Q}{\Delta T}.$$

It is extensive: doubling the amount of material doubles C . The specific heat capacity $c \equiv C/m$ is intensive and a property of the material.

6.2 Heat Capacity Depends on the Process

Using the first law, $Q = \Delta U - W$, so

$$C = \frac{\Delta U - W}{\Delta T}.$$

C depends on how much work is done during the heating (it would almost be better named the "energy capacity"), so the process must be specified.

Definition 18 (Heat capacity at constant volume). *If V is fixed, $W = 0$ and*

$$C_V = \left(\frac{\partial U}{\partial T} \right)_V.$$

Definition 19 (Heat capacity at constant pressure). *Most materials expand when heated⁶, doing work $W = -P \Delta V < 0$ on the surroundings, so extra heat is needed. At constant (usually atmospheric) pressure,*

$$C_P = \left(\frac{\partial U}{\partial T} \right)_P + P \left(\frac{\partial V}{\partial T} \right)_P.$$

Remark 17. *The first term is not exactly C_V (constant P , not V). The second term is the heat lost to expansion work. For solids and liquids $(\partial V/\partial T)_P \approx 0$, so $C_P \approx C_V$; for gases it is significant.*

Proposition 1 (C_P of an ideal gas). *U depends only on T , so $(\partial U/\partial T)_P = C_V$, and $(\partial V/\partial T)_P = Nk_B/P$. Hence*

$$C_P = C_V + Nk_B = C_V + nR, \quad c_P = c_V + R \text{ (molar)}.$$

6.3 Enthalpy

Definition 20 (Enthalpy). *Enthalpy is the state function*

$$H = U + PV.$$

It is the convenient energy to use for processes at constant pressure.

Proposition 2. *At constant P , $dH = dQ$, and therefore*

$$C_P = \left(\frac{\partial H}{\partial T} \right)_P.$$

Proof. $dH = dU + P dV + V dP = (dQ - P dV) + P dV + V dP = dQ + V dP$. At constant P , $dH = dQ$, and dividing by dT gives C_P . $\square$

⁶Some materials contract over certain ranges of T (negative thermal expansion), but they are the exception.

6.4 Calorimetry

A calorimeter is an insulated container in which two bodies at different temperatures reach a common final temperature. Since the whole is isolated,

$$Q_{\text{system}} = -Q_{\text{surroundings}}.$$

Example. 150.0 g of lead at 100 °C is dropped into 50.0 g of water at 22.0 °C; the final temperature is 28.8 °C. With $c_{\text{water}} = 4.18 \text{ J g}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$,

$$q_{\text{water}} = (50 \text{ g})(4.18 \text{ J g}^{-1} \text{ °C}^{-1})(6.8 \text{ °C}) = 1.4 \times 10^3 \text{ J} = -q_{\text{lead}},$$

$$c_{\text{lead}} = \frac{-1.4 \times 10^3 \text{ J}}{(150 \text{ g})(28.8 - 100) \text{ °C}} = 0.13 \text{ J g}^{-1} \text{ °C}^{-1}.$$

6.5 The Mechanical Equivalent of Heat

In Joule's experiment (1850), a falling weight spins a paddle wheel in insulated water; the lost potential energy $mg \Delta h$ raises the water's temperature. He found about 4.2 J per gram per °C, close to the modern $4.18 \text{ J g}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$. This showed that W and Q are interchangeable forms of energy, and that a given amount of work always produces the same amount of heat (energy is conserved).

Remark 18. See Problem 1.30 in Schroeder: shake a sealed bottle of water for several minutes and compare the measured temperature rise with a rough estimate.

7 Quasistatic Processes of an Ideal Gas

Since $PV = Nk_B T$, how P changes with V depends on what happens to T , so $W = -\int P dV$ depends on the process. All processes below are quasistatic. Figure 1 shows them on a P - V diagram.

September 9
and 14, 2026

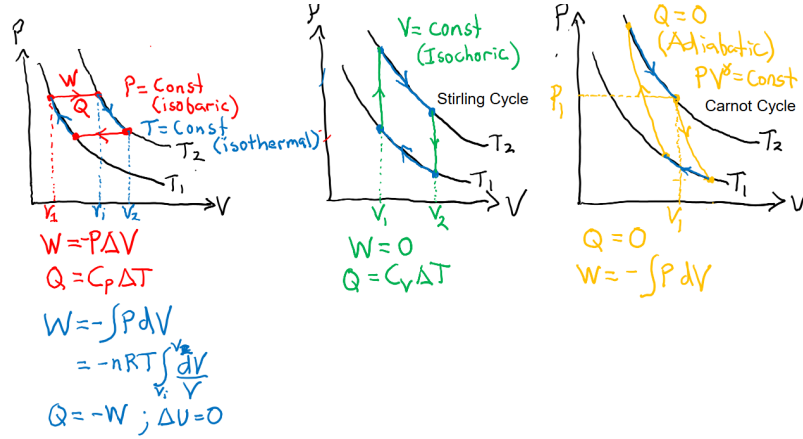


Figure 1: Left: isobaric (red) and isothermal (blue) processes between the isotherms T_1 and T_2 . Centre: a Stirling cycle, made of two isochoric (green) and two isothermal steps. Right: a Carnot cycle, made of two adiabatic (yellow) and two isothermal steps.

7.1 Isobaric and Isochoric

Isobaric (P constant). A horizontal line:

$$W = -P(V_2 - V_1), \quad Q = \int_{T_1}^{T_2} C_P dT = C_P \Delta T \quad (\text{constant } C_P).$$

Isochoric (V constant). A vertical line:

$$W = 0, \quad Q = \Delta U = C_V \Delta T.$$

7.2 Isothermal (T constant)

The gas is in contact with a reservoir that supplies or absorbs heat. With $P = Nk_B T/V$,

$$W = - \int_{V_i}^{V_f} \frac{Nk_B T}{V} dV = Nk_B T \ln \frac{V_f}{V_i}.$$

Since U depends only on T , $\Delta U = 0$ and

$$Q = -W = Nk_B T \ln \frac{V_f}{V_i}.$$

In an expansion the gas does work and absorbs an equal heat from the reservoir; in a compression the work done on the gas is dumped into the reservoir as heat.

7.3 Adiabatic ($Q = 0$)

The gas is insulated, or the process is too fast for heat to flow. Then $\Delta U = W$: an adiabatic compression heats the gas and an expansion cools it.

Equation of the adiabat. With $dU = \frac{f}{2}Nk_B dT = -P dV$ and $P = Nk_B T/V$,

$$\frac{f}{2} \frac{dT}{T} = -\frac{dV}{V} \implies \frac{f}{2} \ln \frac{T_f}{T_i} = -\ln \frac{V_f}{V_i} \implies VT^{f/2} = \text{constant}.$$

Proposition 3 (Adiabat in terms of P and V). *Eliminating $T = PV/Nk_B$,*

$$PV^\gamma = \text{constant}, \quad TV^{\gamma-1} = \text{constant}, \quad \gamma = \frac{f+2}{f} = \frac{C_P}{C_V}.$$

Remark 19. Since $\gamma > 1$, an adiabat is steeper than an isotherm on a P - V diagram. Monatomic: $\gamma = 5/3$. Diatomic (air): $\gamma = 7/5$. The work is $W = \Delta U = C_V \Delta T$.

8 Kinetic Theory of Gases

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2026

Kinetic theory is a microscopic model for $U(T)$ and C of an ideal gas: relate P to the kinetic energy of the particles, then use $PV = Nk_B T$ to relate that to T .

8.1 Pressure from a Single Particle

One particle of mass m bounces between the walls of a box of length L with x -velocity u_x . Each collision reverses its momentum, giving the wall

$$\Delta p_{\text{wall}} = -(-mu_x - mu_x) = 2mu_x,$$

once every round trip $\Delta t = 2L/u_x$. The average force is

$$\bar{F} = \frac{\Delta p_{\text{wall}}}{\Delta t} = \frac{mu_x^2}{L} \quad (\text{one particle}).$$

8.2 Pressure from All N Particles

Summing over N particles and dividing by the wall area A ($AL = V$),

$$P = \frac{Nm\overline{u_x^2}}{V} \implies PV = Nm\overline{u_x^2}.$$

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8.3 Temperature and the Average Kinetic Energy

No direction is preferred, so $\overline{u^2} = 3\overline{u_x^2}$ and $PV = \frac{1}{3}Nm\overline{u^2}$. Comparing with $PV = Nk_B T$,

$$\bar{e}_k = \frac{1}{2}m\overline{u^2} = \frac{3}{2}k_B T.$$

Remark 20. *The average translational kinetic energy per molecule depends only on temperature, not on the mass or type of molecule. This is the microscopic meaning of temperature.*

Remark 21. *The speeds follow the Maxwell–Boltzmann distribution, with most probable speed $<$ average speed $<$ rms speed $\sqrt{\overline{u^2}}$.*

9 Equipartition and Heat Capacities

September 16,
2026

9.1 The Equipartition Theorem

Definition 21 (Degree of freedom). *A degree of freedom (DOF) is a form of energy that enters the total energy as a quadratic function of a position or velocity component (Cartesian or angular): translational, rotational and vibrational kinetic energy, and elastic potential energy.*

Principle 1 (Equipartition theorem). *At thermal equilibrium at temperature T , each accessible quadratic degree of freedom carries an average energy $\frac{1}{2}k_B T$. For N molecules with f DOF each,*

$$U_{\text{thermal}} = Nf \cdot \frac{1}{2}k_B T.$$

Remark 22. *Except for ideal gases, U_{thermal} is not the total energy: there is also "static" energy (chemical bonds, rest energies mc^2). Equipartition still describes energy changes with T , as long as no phase transitions or bond-breaking occur.*

9.2 Counting Degrees of Freedom

A molecule of N atoms has $3N$ independent displacements:

- **Translational:** 3 (centre of mass).
- **Rotational:** 2 (linear) or 3 (nonlinear).
- **Vibrational:** $3N - 5$ (linear) or $3N - 6$ (nonlinear).

Translations and rotations count as one quadratic DOF each; each vibrational mode counts as two (kinetic and potential).

Example (NH_3). $N = 4$, nonlinear: 3 translational, 3 rotational, $12 - 6 = 6$ vibrational modes, so $f = 3 + 3 + 2(6) = 18$.

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2026

Solids. Atoms are pinned near lattice sites, so only vibration remains. With n atoms per unit cell there are $3n$ vibrational modes, so $f = 6n$ ($f = 6$ for a simple solid).

9.3 Freezing Out

Each DOF has a minimum quantum excitation energy (for a vibration, $\hbar\omega_{\text{vib}}$). If $\frac{1}{2}k_B T$ is much smaller than it, the DOF stays in its ground state and is frozen out. So $f \rightarrow f(T)$ and $C_V \rightarrow C_V(T)$.

9.4 Predicting Heat Capacities

From $U = \frac{f}{2} N k_B T$,

$$C_V = \frac{f}{2} N k_B.$$

Example (Monatomic gas). $f = 3$, which cannot freeze out: $c_V = \frac{3}{2}R \approx 12.5 \text{ J mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$, independent of the atom and of T ($R = 8.31 \text{ J mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$).

Example (Diatomic H_2). $c_V = \frac{3}{2}R$ at low T , $\frac{5}{2}R$ once rotation turns on (above $\sim 100 \text{ K}$), and $\frac{7}{2}R$ once vibration turns on ($k_B T \sim \hbar\omega_{\text{vib}}$, thousands of K).

Proposition 4 (Rule of Dulong and Petit). At high T , with all vibrational modes active, a monatomic solid ($f = 6$) has

$$c_V \approx 3R \approx 25 \text{ J mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}.$$

10 Heat Engines and the Second Law

Remark 23. Convention for this section: T_1 is the hot reservoir and T_2 the cold one, and Q_1 , Q_2 , W are magnitudes (all positive).

10.1 Cycles and Heat Engines

Definition 22 (Cycle). A process that returns the system (working substance) to its initial state. Then $\Delta U = 0$, and the net work is the area enclosed by the loop on the P - V diagram.

Definition 23 (Heat engine). A device that takes a working substance around a cycle, absorbing Q_1 from a hot reservoir at T_1 , rejecting Q_2 to a cold one at T_2 , and producing work W . By the first law, $W = Q_1 - Q_2$, and its efficiency is

$$\eta = \frac{W}{Q_1} = 1 - \frac{Q_2}{Q_1}.$$

Remark 24. Getting $\eta = 1$ would need $Q_2 = 0$. The second law forbids this. Any heat taken from the hot reservoir and not turned into work is a loss.

- Stirling cycle: two isotherms joined by two isochores.
- Carnot cycle: two isotherms joined by two adiabats.

Example (Nuclear plant). $\eta = 0.31$, electrical output 625 MW. Per day, $W = 625 \times 10^6 \text{ W} \times 86400 \text{ s} = 5.4 \times 10^{13} \text{ J}$, so $Q_1 = W/\eta = 1.74 \times 10^{14} \text{ J}$ and the waste heat is $Q_2 = Q_1 - W = 1.20 \times 10^{14} \text{ J}$, which is why plants need cooling towers.

10.2 Statements of the Second Law

Law 3 (Kelvin–Planck statement). *It is impossible to construct a device that, operating in a cycle, produces no effect other than the extraction of heat from a single body at uniform temperature and the production of an equivalent amount of work.*

Law 4 (Clausius statement). *It is impossible to construct a device that, operating in a cycle, produces no effect other than the transfer of heat from a colder to a hotter body.*

Remark 25. *The key words matter:*

- *Cycle: an isothermal expansion of an ideal gas converts heat entirely into work, but it is not a cycle.*
- *No other effect: the reservoirs only deliver heat, no work.*
- *Single body: there is no reservoir to accept waste heat.*

The converse is allowed: converting work entirely into heat is possible. A refrigerator or heat pump does not violate Clausius, since work is done on it.

Proposition 5. *The Kelvin and Clausius statements are equivalent.*

Proof. If Kelvin is false, an engine E turns Q_1 from the hot body entirely into $W = Q_1$. Use W to drive a refrigerator R that takes Q_2 from the cold body and delivers $Q_1 + Q_2$ to the hot body. The composite moves Q_2 from cold to hot with no other effect, violating Clausius.

If Clausius is false, a device moves Q_2 from cold to hot with no work. Run an ordinary engine E that takes Q_1 from the hot body, rejects Q_2 to the cold body and produces $W = Q_1 - Q_2$. The cold body is unchanged, so the composite turns $Q_1 - Q_2$ from the hot body entirely into work, violating Kelvin. $\square$

10.3 The Carnot Cycle and Carnot's Theorem

Definition 24 (Carnot cycle). *A fully reversible cycle between only two reservoirs:*

1. *isothermal expansion at T_1 , absorbing Q_1 ;*

2. *adiabatic expansion, $T_1 \rightarrow T_2$;*
3. *isothermal compression at T_2 , rejecting Q_2 ;*
4. *adiabatic compression, $T_2 \rightarrow T_1$.*

Theorem 2 (Carnot's theorem). *No engine operating between two reservoirs is more efficient than a Carnot engine operating between the same two reservoirs.*

Proof. Suppose an engine E' has $\eta' > \eta_C$. Scale the cycles so that $W' = W$; then $W/Q'_1 > W/Q_1$ gives $Q_1 > Q'_1$. Since the Carnot engine C is reversible, run it backwards as a refrigerator driven by the work of E' . The composite does no net work, but delivers $Q_1 - Q'_1 > 0$ to the hot reservoir and takes the same amount from the cold one, violating Clausius. $\square$

Corollary 2.1. *All Carnot (reversible) engines between the same two reservoirs have the same efficiency, independent of the working substance. It depends only on the reservoir temperatures.*

10.4 Thermodynamic Temperature Scale

Definition 25 (Thermodynamic temperature). *Since η_C depends only on the reservoirs, define the thermodynamic temperature by*

$$\eta_C = 1 - \frac{T_2}{T_1}, \quad \text{so} \quad \frac{T_1}{T_2} = \frac{Q_1}{Q_2} \quad (\text{Carnot only}).$$

Remark 26. *The scale is self-consistent: stacking Carnot engines C_{12} and C_{23} on a ladder $T_1 > T_2 > T_3$ gives $T_1/T_3 = Q_1/Q_3$, without T_2 . It is independent of the working substance (heat can always be measured), and it coincides with the ideal gas scale up to a constant factor.*

10.5 Refrigerators and Heat Pumps

A Carnot engine run backwards takes Q_2 from the cold reservoir, uses work $W = Q_1 - Q_2$, and delivers Q_1 to the hot one. Performance is measured by the coefficient of performance (COP), which can exceed 1.

Proposition 6 (Carnot COP).

$$\text{Refrigerator (output } Q_2\text{): } COP = \frac{Q_2}{W} = \frac{T_2}{T_1 - T_2},$$

$$\text{Heat pump (output } Q_1\text{): } COP = \frac{Q_1}{W} = \frac{T_1}{T_1 - T_2} = \frac{1}{1 - T_2/T_1}.$$

Example. *Fridge compartment at 276 K in a 293 K room: maximum COP ≈ 16 . Freezer at 255 K: only ≈ 6.7 . Real fridges: about 4 or 5. Heat pump from 273 K outside to 293 K inside: COP ≈ 15 .*

Remark 27. *The COP of both drops as $T_1 - T_2$ grows (as T_2/T_1 decreases).*

10.6 Real Engines

Example (Steam engine). *Between 773 K and 293 K, $\eta_C = 1 - 293/773 = 0.62$, but real steam engines reach about 0.4.*

Remark 28. *Real engines do not run Carnot cycles: setting up isothermal and adiabatic steps is impractical, isothermal heat flow is far too slow to deliver useful power, and hot parts always leak heat to the environment. $\eta_C = 1$ would need $T_2 = 0$, forbidden by the third law.*

Otto cycle. A simplified model of a gasoline engine (a good model of the 2-stroke cycle, or of the compression/expansion part of the 4-stroke cycle). The gas is taken to be air, an ideal diatomic gas with $\gamma = 7/5$ (the mixture is only $\sim 6\%$ fuel):

- $a \rightarrow b$: adiabatic compression, $V_1 \rightarrow V_2$ (fast, so little heat flows);
- $b \rightarrow c$: ignition at constant V_2 , $Q_1 = C_V(T_c - T_b)$;
- $c \rightarrow d$: adiabatic expansion, $V_2 \rightarrow V_1$;
- $d \rightarrow a$: exhaust at constant V_1 , $Q_2 = C_V(T_d - T_a)$.

Proposition 7 (Otto efficiency). *With compression ratio $r_c = V_1/V_2$,*

$$\eta = 1 - \left(\frac{V_2}{V_1}\right)^{\gamma-1} = 1 - \frac{1}{r_c^{\gamma-1}}.$$

Proof. Along the adiabats $TV^{\gamma-1}$ is constant: $T_a V_1^{\gamma-1} = T_b V_2^{\gamma-1}$ and $T_d V_1^{\gamma-1} = T_c V_2^{\gamma-1}$. Subtracting, $T_d - T_a = (T_c - T_b)(V_2/V_1)^{\gamma-1}$, so

$$\eta = 1 - \frac{Q_2}{Q_1} = 1 - \frac{T_d - T_a}{T_c - T_b} = 1 - \left(\frac{V_2}{V_1}\right)^{\gamma-1}.$$

□

Remark 29. *Efficiency improves with r_c . Cars have $r_c \approx 7$ or 8, giving $\eta \approx 1 - 7^{-2/5} = 0.54$, while real engines reach about 30%. High-performance cars have $r_c \geq 10$ (F1 capped r_c at 16 for 2026). Schroeder 4.3 also covers the Diesel, Stirling and Rankine (steam) cycles.*

11 Entropy

The second law is about the direction of spontaneous processes: heat flows from hot to cold, and the reverse requires work. Entropy quantifies this. The plan: derive the Clausius inequality for any cycle, use it on reversible paths to define S as a state function, then compare reversible and irreversible processes.

11.1 The Clausius Inequality

Theorem 3 (Clausius inequality). *For any cycle,*

$$\oint \frac{dQ}{T_{\text{surr}}} \leq 0,$$

where T_{surr} is the temperature of the reservoir supplying heat at each point of the cycle (not T_{sys}).

Proof. Supply each small heat dQ_i to the working substance from an auxiliary reservoir at T_i , kept unchanged by a Carnot engine C_i running between it and a reservoir at T_0 . That reservoir is in turn refilled from a single principal reservoir at T_0 , which therefore gives $(T_0/T_i)dQ_i$ while C_i does work dW_i . Take the composite system (working substance, Carnot engines, auxiliary reservoirs). After one full cycle it is unchanged, so $\Delta U = 0$ and the external work done by it is

$$W_{\text{ext}} = Q = T_0 \sum_i \frac{dQ_i}{T_i}.$$

If $W_{\text{ext}} > 0$, heat from a single reservoir became work in a cycle, violating Kelvin. So $W_{\text{ext}} = Q \leq 0$, i.e. $\sum_i dQ_i/T_i \leq 0$, which becomes the integral in the limit. $\square$

Corollary 3.1. *For a fully reversible cycle, running it backwards flips the sign of every dQ , so both $\leq$ and $\geq$ hold:*

$$\oint_R \frac{dQ_R}{T} = 0.$$

The subscript "surr" is dropped since $T_{\text{sys}} = T_{\text{surr}}$ on a reversible path. If $T_{\text{sys}} \neq T_{\text{surr}}$ anywhere, the process is irreversible.

11.2 Definition of Entropy

Take a reversible cycle: $i \rightarrow f$ along R_1 , back along R_2 . The corollary gives $\int_{R_1} dQ_R/T = -\int_{R_2, f \rightarrow i} dQ_R/T = \int_{R_2, i \rightarrow f} dQ_R/T$, so the integral is the same along every reversible path.

Definition 26 (Entropy). *Entropy S is the state function with*

$$\Delta S = S_f - S_i = \int_{i, R}^f \frac{dQ_R}{T}, \quad dS = \frac{dQ_R}{T} \quad (\text{reversible only}).$$

Remark 30. *Only differences in S are defined here. The integral must be along a reversible path ($T_{\text{sys}} = T_{\text{surr}}$), with T in kelvin; S is in J K^{-1} . The same dQ gives a smaller dS at higher T .*

Remark 31. *For an irreversible process between two equilibrium states, ΔS is still defined: pick any convenient reversible path between the same endpoints.*

Example (Heating water). 1 kg of water ($C_P = 4190 \text{ J K}^{-1}$) is heated from 20°C to 100°C on a stove at 100°C . This is irreversible (large T difference), so use a reversible path through reservoirs at $T + dT$: $dQ = C_P dT$,

$$\Delta S = C_P \int_{T_i}^{T_f} \frac{dT}{T} = C_P \ln \frac{T_f}{T_i} = (4190 \text{ J K}^{-1}) \ln \frac{373}{293} = 1.01 \times 10^3 \text{ J K}^{-1}.$$

Example (Free expansion). An ideal gas expands freely into vacuum, doubling its volume. $Q = W = 0$, so $\Delta U = 0$ and T is unchanged. Use a reversible isothermal expansion between the same states: $Q_R = Nk_B T \ln 2$, so

$$\Delta S = \frac{Q_R}{T} = Nk_B \ln 2 > 0,$$

even though no heat flowed in the actual (adiabatic but irreversible) process.

11.3 Principle of Increasing Entropy

Theorem 4. For any infinitesimal process between equilibrium states,

$$dS \geq \frac{dQ}{T_{\text{surr}}},$$

with equality if and only if the process is reversible.

Proof. Build a cycle: $i \rightarrow f$ along the actual (possibly irreversible) path, then back $f \rightarrow i$ along a reversible path R . Clausius gives

$$\int_i^f \frac{dQ}{T_0} + \int_{f,R}^i \frac{dQ_R}{T} \leq 0 \quad \Rightarrow \quad \int_i^f \frac{dQ}{T_0} \leq \int_{i,R}^f \frac{dQ_R}{T} = S_f - S_i.$$

□

Corollary 4.1 (Principle of increasing entropy). For a thermally isolated system, $dQ = 0$, so

$$\Delta S \geq 0.$$

The entropy of a thermally isolated system increases in any irreversible process and is unchanged in any reversible one. Isolated systems evolve toward the equilibrium state of maximum entropy.

Remark 32. If the system is also mechanically isolated (no work), U is constant too.

Remark 33. The principle applies to the whole isolated system, not to its parts. If $T_A > T_B$ inside an adiabatic wall, heat flows from A to B : S_A decreases, S_B increases, and the total increases.

A Appendix

B Useful Links